

Lecture 3 - Fermions on a lattice

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Abstract

In this lecture we will see the challenges one faces when placing fermionic degrees of freedom on the lattice. In order to understand the problem, we will first have a brief look at continuum Minkowski fermions, and see what changes when we go to Euclidean spacetime. With this we will also recap on Grassmann algebra and the Dirac equation. We then begin by naively discretizing the Dirac equation in Euclidean spacetime and see what differs from the scalar theory - as seen from the propagator. This will lead us to the doubling problem and the famous Nielsen-Ninomiya theory - at least a simplified version of it. We will then briefly see how one must go beyond the naive discretization and only introduce the Wilson and Staggered fermions - you will hear more about this in a later lecture.

1 Overview

In order to get a complete description of nature, fermionic fields theories need to be considered. Fermions - unlike gauge or scalar fields - have no classical interpretation. Generally the first time one hears about fermions is in an introductory QFT lecture (or in quantum statistical mechanics when discussing the spin-statistics theorem). Usually, this is introduced as an attempt (by Paul Dirac) to create a version of the Schrödinger equation that also satisfies Lorentz invariance (as any quantum field theory should). This then leads to the discovery of a linear equation in space and time with some additional *spin* structure that naturally describes spin-1/2 particles. Further, if one tries to quantize the Dirac equation, one finds that the usual commutation relations which were enough to describe scalars and gauge fields - now lead to inconsistencies. One problem being that if one insists on using commutators, one is lead to an unbounded Hamiltonian. In order to re-concile all we know about spin half particles (Pauli exclusion principle) and not have unbounded Hamiltonians, we are forced to use *anti-commutators* to describe fermions.

As we will discuss in today's lecture, it is quite hard to place fermions on a discrete spacetime lattice unless we are willing to break a few symmetries (Chiral) or meaningful physical requirements like locality. If we naively try to discretize free fermions like we did for the free scalar fields (comparing matter fields to matter fields), we run into an infamous problem called the "doubling problem". Essentially this means that if we try to discretize a theory of a single free fermion, and then try to remove this discretization by taking the continuum limit - we end up with a *different* theory - one with twice the number of fermions per dimension than the original theory. For these reasons lattice fermions are still an active area of research.

I highly recommend reading Chapters 4 & 5 in David Tong's lecture notes[1] on QFT

In this lecture we will briefly motivate two fermion discretizations beyond the naive version: Staggered and Wilson fermions. Since this is a very delicate topic - you will hear it once again in the 9th lecture from the Hamiltonian perspective.

Disclaimer: The purpose of this lecture is *not* to introduce fermions rigorously as this is done over many weeks in a proper QFT course! However since our goal is to *put fermions on the lattice* - we will need to introduce the *bare minimum* continuum knowledge needed for this.

2 Continuum Fermions & Grassmann Algebra: A Recap

In this section we briefly remind ourselves about some properties of fermions in the continuum and in Minkowski spacetime.

The Electron Field and Its Indices

The simplest fermionic field theory is *Quantum Electrodynamics* (QED), which essentially describes electrons interacting with photons. In this lecture we will study only free fermions, because of the subtleties involved in putting them on the lattice. Further, combining fermions and the abelian gauge fields is much the same as we did for the scalar field theory. The key difference from the scalar field we studied previously is that the fermionic field $\psi(x)$ is *not* a single number at each spacetime point - it is a multi-component object called the *Dirac spinor field*. For an electron (as opposed to quarks), the field carries a single type of index,

$$\psi_\alpha(x), \quad \alpha \in \{1, 2, 3, 4\}, \quad (1)$$

where the indices have the following meaning,

$$\begin{aligned} x &: \text{spacetime point, as usual,} \\ \alpha \in \{1, 2\} &: \text{electron components (spin-up and spin-down),} \\ \alpha \in \{3, 4\} &: \text{positron components (spin-up and spin-down).} \end{aligned} \quad (2)$$

Note that for the electron there is no colour index - electrons do not carry colour charge and so are blind to the strong force. There is also no flavour index since there is only one type of electron. The field $\psi_\alpha(x)$ takes values in $\mathbb{C}^4$ - it is a 4-component complex-valued spinor at each spacetime point.

One also needs the Dirac conjugate field, defined as,

$$\bar{\psi}_\alpha(x) \equiv \sum_{\beta=1}^4 \psi_\beta^\dagger(x) (\gamma^0)_{\beta\alpha}, \quad (3)$$

where $\psi_\beta^\dagger$ is the complex conjugate transpose of ψ_β - it is a row vector with index β - and $(\gamma^0)_{\beta\alpha}$ is the (β, α) matrix element of γ^0 . The sum over β is just the usual matrix-vector multiplication $\psi^\dagger \gamma^0$, where γ^0 is the time-like Dirac matrix. It is important to note that ψ and $\bar{\psi}$ are treated as *independent* Grassmann-valued fields in the path integral.

The spinor index α is contracted with the Dirac matrices $(\gamma^\mu)_{\alpha\beta}$, which are 4×4 matrices satisfying the *Clifford algebra*,

$$\{\gamma^\mu, \gamma^\nu\} \equiv \gamma^\mu \gamma^\nu + \gamma^\nu \gamma^\mu = 2 \eta^{\mu\nu}, \quad (4)$$

For QCD (quarks) one adds a colour index $a \in \{r, g, b\}$ and a flavour index $f \in \{u, d, s, c, b, t\}$, giving the full field $\psi_{\alpha,f}^a(x)$.

The conjugate field is defined in order to get a Lorentz scalar - without the γ_0 , we would not get a scalar (see Chapter 4 in David Tong's lecture notes[1] on QFT)

where we use the convention $\eta^{\mu\nu} = \text{diag}(+1, -1, -1, -1)$ for the metric of Minkowski spacetime. One last ingredient that we need is the γ^5 matrix and its properties:

$$\begin{aligned}\gamma^5 &= i\gamma^0\gamma^1\gamma^2\gamma^3 \\ \{\gamma^5, \gamma^\mu\} &= 0.\end{aligned}$$

Dirac Equation

The Dirac equation for a free massive fermion is given by,

$$(i\gamma^\mu\partial_\mu - M)\psi(x) = 0, \quad (5)$$

while the Dirac action is given by,

$$S[\psi, \bar{\psi}] = \int d^4x \bar{\psi}(x) (i\gamma^\mu\partial_\mu - M) \psi(x). \quad (6)$$

Grassmann Algebra

The most important aspect of fermion fields is that they satisfy the Grassmann algebra - necessary to ensure the Fermi statistics. This means that if we consider a product of two fermion fields, they satisfy,

$$\psi(x)_\alpha \psi(x')_\beta = -\psi(x')_\beta \psi(x)_\alpha. \quad (7)$$

This is called the *anti-commutativity* property of Grassmann numbers. In general, a set of Grassmann numbers $\{\theta_i\}$ with $i \in \{1, 2, \dots, N\}$ are defined by the anticommutation relations,

$$\{\theta_i, \theta_j\} = \theta_i\theta_j + \theta_j\theta_i = 0 \quad \text{for all } i, j. \quad (8)$$

An element of the Grassmann algebra is a polynomial in the generators,

$$f(\theta) = f + \sum_i f_i \theta_i + \sum_{ij} f_{ij} \theta_i \theta_j + \sum_{ijk} f_{ijk} \theta_i \theta_j \theta_k + \dots, \quad (9)$$

where the coefficients $f_{ij\dots l}$ are ordinary complex (or sometimes real) numbers, which are antisymmetric in $i, j, \dots, l$. Setting $i = j$ in the anticommutation relation immediately gives us a very important consequence - the square of any Grassmann number is zero,

$$\theta_i^2 = 0. \quad (10)$$

This means the polynomial above terminates at finite order and, in particular, the Taylor expansion of any function $f(\theta)$ of a single Grassmann variable truncates after the first order,

$$f(\theta) = f_0 + f_1 \theta, \quad (11)$$

where f_0 and f_1 are ordinary (commuting) numbers. One also defines formal differentiation and integration procedures. The differentiation rules are,

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial \theta_i} \theta_i = 1, \quad \frac{\partial}{\partial \theta_i} \theta_i \theta_j = \theta_j, \quad \frac{\partial}{\partial \theta_i} \theta_j \theta_i = -\theta_j, \quad (12)$$

Hermann Günther Grassmann (1809–1877) was a German mathematician and linguist who introduced what we now call exterior algebra in his 1844 work *Die lineale Ausdehnungslehre*. His work was largely ignored during his lifetime and only recognised after his death. His work was later found to be exactly the right mathematical structure to describe fermions in quantum field theory.

and integration is defined by the *Berezin integral*,

$$\int d\theta \, 1 = 0, \quad \int d\theta \, \theta = 1. \quad (13)$$

Note that Grassmann numbers are not real or complex numbers in the usual sense - they are purely formal algebraic objects. In practice, one never needs to assign a numerical value to θ - what matters is the algebra they satisfy. Finally, a Grassmann number anti-commutes with all other Grassmann numbers but commutes with ordinary numbers,

$$\theta_i c = c \theta_i, \quad \theta_i \theta_j = -\theta_j \theta_i, \quad (14)$$

where $c \in \mathbb{C}$ is an ordinary number. These rules are everything one needs to define the fermion path integral, which we will come to shortly. Note that this anti-commutativity also applies to the measure,

$$d\theta_1 d\theta_2 = -d\theta_2 d\theta_1, \quad d\bar{\theta}_1 d\theta_2 = -d\theta_2 d\bar{\theta}_1. \quad (15)$$

This will be relevant in the exercises when you compute the fermion path integral!

3 Euclidean Continuum Fermions

In this section we will motivate the conventions for the Euclidean Dirac matrices. In order to do this recall that we want to go from the oscillatory path integral in $S[\psi, \bar{\psi}]$ to a well defined Euclidean version which has a probabilistic interpretation (i.e. a positive-definite Boltzmann weight¹),

$$\int \mathcal{D}\bar{\psi} \mathcal{D}\psi e^{iS[\psi, \bar{\psi}]} \xrightarrow{t \rightarrow -i\tau} \int \mathcal{D}\bar{\psi} \mathcal{D}\psi e^{-S_E[\psi, \bar{\psi}]}. \quad (16)$$

So we need two things: (i) a real action, (ii) and overall negative sign in front of a positive action. In order to do this we follow the prescription,

$$\gamma_4^E \rightarrow \gamma^0 \quad (17)$$

$$\gamma_i^E \rightarrow -i\gamma^i. \quad (18)$$

This gives us the Euclidean version of the Clifford algebra in Eq. (4),

$$\{\gamma_\mu^E, \gamma_\nu^E\} = 2\delta_{\mu\nu}. \quad (19)$$

A key consequence of this prescription is that all Euclidean gamma matrices are Hermitian, $(\gamma_\mu^E)^\dagger = \gamma_\mu^E$, in contrast to the Minkowski case where $(\gamma^i)^\dagger = -\gamma^i$. We can also define the Euclidean γ^5 matrix using the same prescription. In Minkowski space we had $\gamma^5 = i\gamma^0\gamma^1\gamma^2\gamma^3$, and substituting $\gamma^0 = \gamma_4^E$ and $\gamma^i = i\gamma_i^E$ gives,

$$\gamma^5 = i\gamma^0\gamma^1\gamma^2\gamma^3 = i\gamma_4^E(i\gamma_1^E)(i\gamma_2^E)(i\gamma_3^E) = i \cdot i^3 \gamma_1^E\gamma_2^E\gamma_3^E\gamma_4^E = \gamma_1^E\gamma_2^E\gamma_3^E\gamma_4^E. \quad (20)$$

Importantly, γ^5 is *the same* in both Minkowski and Euclidean space - no extra factors appear. It satisfies the same key properties,

$$(\gamma^5)^2 = \mathbb{I}, \quad (\gamma^5)^\dagger = \gamma^5, \quad \{\gamma^5, \gamma_\mu^E\} = 0. \quad (21)$$

¹For fermions, ψ and $\bar{\psi}$ are Grassmann variables, so $e^{-S_E[\psi, \bar{\psi}]}$ is not a real number configuration-by-configuration and positivity must be argued differently, as we discuss below.

With this prescription, the Euclidean Dirac action becomes,

$$S^E[\psi, \bar{\psi}] = \bar{\psi}(x) \left(\gamma_\mu^E \partial_\mu + M \right) \psi(x). \quad (22)$$

Note that although $(\gamma_\mu^E)^\dagger = \gamma_\mu^E$, the (massless) Dirac operator $\not{\partial}_E = \gamma_\mu^E \partial_\mu$ is anti-Hermitian, $(\not{\partial}_E)^\dagger = -\not{\partial}_E$, since $\partial_\mu^\dagger = -\partial_\mu$. Its eigenvalues are therefore purely imaginary, $\pm i\lambda_n$ with $\lambda_n \in \mathbb{R}$. The eigenvalues of the operator including the mass terms are then of the form $i\lambda + M$ (and their complex conjugates as we argue below).

As one can guess, the positive-definiteness of the Boltzmann weight cannot be argued pointwise for fermions, since ψ and $\bar{\psi}$ are Grassmann variables and e^{-S^E} is not a positive number for each field configuration. Instead, one integrates out the fermions exactly to obtain a functional determinant,

$$\int \mathcal{D}\bar{\psi} \mathcal{D}\psi e^{-\bar{\psi}(\not{\partial}_E + M)\psi} = \det(\not{\partial}_E + M). \quad (23)$$

In order to understand the reality and positivity of this determinant, we need to look at the spectrum of the matrix $D \equiv \not{\partial}_E + M$. As we have seen the Euclidean (massive) Dirac operator does not seem to have any hermitian properties on its own - but it has something called the γ^5 -hermiticity. This is the property,

$$\gamma^5 D = D^\dagger \gamma^5. \quad (24)$$

This property ensures that if the Dirac operator has an eigenvector with a complex eigenvalue with $D|u\rangle = \kappa|u\rangle$, then it also has another eigenvector $\gamma^5|u\rangle$ with the eigenvalue κ^* - so the eigenvalues of $(\not{\partial}_E + M)$ pair up as $\kappa \cdot \kappa^*$, giving

$$\det(\not{\partial}_E + M) = \prod_n |\kappa_n|^2 > 0! \quad (25)$$

Thus the Boltzmann weight is positive-definite and the path integral is well-defined. The γ^5 -hermiticity was essential to counter the anti-Hermiticity of $\not{\partial}_E$: it forces the eigenvalue spectrum to consist of complex conjugate pairs, guaranteeing positivity.

4 Naive Lattice Fermions: Doubling Problem

After having discussed the Euclidean version of the Dirac equation, we are now ready to introduce a spacetime lattice and formulate the lattice free fermion theory. We will see that the treatment follows very similarly to the case of the scalar field (both being a matter fields) - and the unusual problems only occurring when we think about the continuum limit. We begin by discussing the dimensionless fields we will put on the lattice:

$$\hat{M} = aM \quad (26)$$

$$\hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) = a^{3/2} \psi(x) \quad (27)$$

$$\hat{\bar{\psi}}_\alpha(n) = a^{3/2} \bar{\psi}(x) \quad (28)$$

$$\hat{\partial}_\mu \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) = a^{5/2} \partial_\mu \psi_\alpha(x). \quad (29)$$

As we have seen in the lecture on lattice scalar fields, there are many ways to discretise the derivative on the lattice using the forward, backward and symmetric

Contrast this with the case of the free scalar field, for which we had a well-defined configuration $\phi(x)$ with the probability weight $e^{-S^E[\phi(x)]}$!

definitions,

$$\hat{\partial}_\mu \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) = \begin{cases} \Delta_\mu^f \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) \equiv \hat{\psi}(n + \hat{\mu}) - \hat{\psi}(n), \\ \Delta_\mu^b \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) \equiv \hat{\psi}(n) - \hat{\psi}(n - \hat{\mu}), \\ \Delta_\mu^s \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) \equiv \frac{\hat{\psi}(n + \hat{\mu}) - \hat{\psi}(n - \hat{\mu})}{2}. \end{cases} \quad (30)$$

Notice that among the different definitions, only the symmetric definition has the anti-Hermitian properties that we need for our Euclidean Dirac operator ∂_μ^E .

Once we have identified the lattice derivative that we have to work with, we can write down the dimensionless (naive) free lattice fermion action as,

$$S^E[\hat{\psi}, \bar{\hat{\psi}}] = \sum_{n, \alpha, \mu > 0} \bar{\hat{\psi}}_\alpha(n) \left(\sum_\beta (\gamma_\mu^E)_{\alpha\beta} \left[\frac{\hat{\psi}_\beta(n + \hat{\mu}) - \hat{\psi}_\beta(n - \hat{\mu})}{2} \right] + \hat{M} \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) \right), \quad (31)$$

The following treatment leading upto the doubling problem follows the discussion in Chapter 4 of ref.[2] very closely.

where the spinor indices α, β have been made explicit. Following the same logic as the scalar field, we can write this action in another form more amenable to computing the partition function,

$$S^E[\hat{\psi}, \bar{\hat{\psi}}] = \sum_{\substack{n, m \\ \alpha, \beta}} \bar{\hat{\psi}}_\alpha(n) K_{\alpha\beta}(n, m) \hat{\psi}_\beta(m), \quad (32)$$

where the matrix elements of $K_{\alpha\beta}(n, m)$ are given by,

$$K_{\alpha\beta}(n, m) = \sum_\mu \frac{1}{2} (\gamma_\mu^E)_{\alpha\beta} [\delta_{m, n + \hat{\mu}} - \delta_{m, n - \hat{\mu}}] + \hat{M} \delta_{m, n}. \quad (33)$$

Using this, the quantity that we want to compute is the two-point Euclidean Green's function $\langle \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) \bar{\hat{\psi}}_\beta(m) \rangle$ – which gives us information on the particle spectrum of our theory. As seen from the case of the scalar field theory, this two-point function can be obtained from a generating functional. The difference now will be (i) spinor indices, and (ii) Grassmann valued sources terms for the fields,

$$Z[\eta, \bar{\eta}] = \int \mathcal{D}\bar{\hat{\psi}} \mathcal{D}\hat{\psi} e^{-S^E[\hat{\psi}, \bar{\hat{\psi}}] + \sum_{n, \alpha} [\bar{\eta}_\alpha(n) \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) + \bar{\hat{\psi}}_\alpha(n) \eta_\alpha(n)]}. \quad (34)$$

Carrying out the Grassmann integral, this reduces to,

This is an exercise!

$$Z[\eta, \bar{\eta}] = \det K \exp \left(\sum_{\substack{k, l \\ \lambda, \gamma}} \bar{\eta}_\lambda(k) K_{\lambda\gamma}^{-1}(k, l) \eta_\gamma(l) \right). \quad (35)$$

Finally one can take the derivatives of Eq.(35) with respect to $\eta_\beta(m)$ and $\bar{\eta}_\alpha(n)$, while carefully following the rules of Grassmann numbers defined in Eq.(12) to get the two-point function,

$$\langle \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) \bar{\hat{\psi}}_\beta(m) \rangle = K_{\alpha\beta}^{-1}(n, m). \quad (36)$$

In order to compute the inverse matrix elements in Eq. (36), we will use (i) the fact,

$$\sum_{\lambda, l} K_{\alpha\lambda}(n, l) K_{\lambda, \beta}^{-1}(l, m) = \delta_{m, n} \delta_{\alpha\beta}, \quad (37)$$

and using the momentum representation ,

$$\langle \hat{\psi}_\alpha(n) \bar{\hat{\psi}}_\beta(m) \rangle = \int_{-\pi}^{\pi} \frac{d^4 \hat{p}}{(2\pi)^4} \frac{[-i\gamma_\mu \hat{p} + M]_{\alpha\beta}}{\hat{p}_\mu \hat{p}_\mu + \hat{M}^2} e^{i\hat{p}(n-m)}. \quad (38)$$

In the above, the momentum $\hat{p}$ – inserting back the factors of lattice spacing – is defined as,

$$\tilde{p}_\mu \equiv \frac{1}{a} \sin(p_\mu a). \quad (39)$$

Finally by re-inserting the appropriate factors of the lattice spacing one gets,

$$G_{\alpha\beta}\left(\frac{x}{a}, \frac{y}{a}, aM\right) = a^3 \int_{-\pi/a}^{\pi/a} \frac{d^4 p}{(2\pi)^4} \frac{[-i\not{p} + M]_{\alpha\beta}}{\sum_\mu \tilde{p}_\mu \tilde{p}_\mu + M^2} e^{ip(x-y)} \quad (40)$$

using which one can recover the continuum the two-point function as we did in the scalar field theory,

$$\langle \psi_\alpha(x) \bar{\psi}_\beta(m) \rangle = \lim_{a \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{a^3} G_{\alpha\beta} \left(\frac{x}{a}, \frac{y}{a}, aM \right). \quad (41)$$

But is this the correct continuum limit? The answer unfortunately is **no** – as opposed to the scalar theory. To see this, begin by comparing Eq. (39) against Eq. (44) from lecture 1, you should notice a big difference – the factor of $\frac{1}{2}!$ The problem can be seen in following illustration (Fig. 1), Recall the arguments for why the continuum limit of the two-point function in case of the scalar field matched the analytical results. We could replace the lattice operator $\tilde{p}$ with the continuum version p only because the modes that were small with respect to the inverse lattice spacing contributed to the integral. This doesn't hold true anymore for the fermions due to the missing one-half factor! The modes at the corners of the Brillouin zones contribute equally to the integral in the continuum limit! On a d -dimensional lattice, there are as many continuum-like contributions to the integral as there are corners of the Brillouin zone. Hence the naive discretisation of the lattice fermions gives 2^d "doublers"².

5 An invitation to Non-Naive discretizations: Wilson and Staggered Fermions

As mentioned in the introduction, putting fermions on the lattice is quite hard and is an active area of research. There are currently many discretizations on the market and two of the easiest-to-understand and most commonly used are the Wilson and Staggered discretizations – you will hear about these from a Hamiltonian perspective again in this course. We will briefly motivate them here as well.

²I plan to extend this section in the coming weeks.

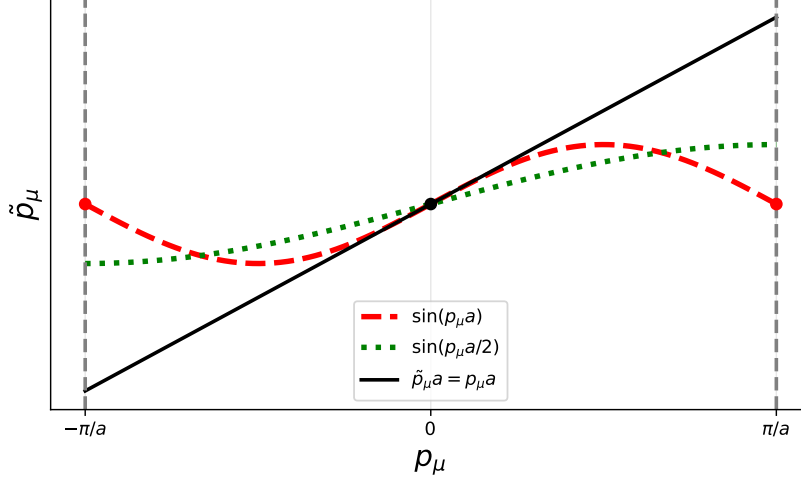


Figure 1: This is an illustration to show the effect of the missing factor of one-half from the fermion lattice momenta in Eq. (39) as opposed to case of the scalar field in Eq. (44) from lecture 1. The fermionic lattice momentum has zeros at the edges of the Brillouin zone!

Wilson Fermions

This is a formulation which completely removes doublers from the continuum theory at the cost of losing the Chiral symmetry completely – even in the massless limit. The idea is to add a term to the naive action which vanishes in the continuum limit – but does so in a way that it adds momentum to the corners of the Brillouin zone such that only the near-zero momentum contributes to the integral in Eq. (40). This prescription is given by,

$$S^{(W)}[\hat{\psi}, \bar{\hat{\psi}}] = S[\hat{\psi}, \bar{\hat{\psi}}] - \frac{r}{2} \sum_n \bar{\hat{\psi}} \hat{\square} \hat{\psi}, \quad (42)$$

where the last term is called the Wilson term and it's role is to make the mass *momentum dependent*. Writing the action in momentum space gives,

$$M(p) \equiv M + \frac{2r}{a} \sum_{\mu} \sin^2(p_{\mu} a/2). \quad (43)$$

This momentum dependent mass has the correct limit at $p_{\mu} = 0$, with $M(p) \rightarrow M$. Interestingly at the Brillouin zone corners, the Wilson term gives a contribution of $\frac{2r}{a}$ – which in the continuum limit becomes infinite and hence the contribution of the term $\sum_{\mu} \tilde{p}_{\mu} \tilde{p}_{\mu} + M(p)^2$ to the integral given in Eq.(40) vanishes and we remain with a single continuum fermion coming from $p_{\mu} \rightarrow 0$! This can be visually illustrated by the following figure (Fig. 2),

Staggered Fermions

In this discretization, a transformation is introduced which mixes the spinor degrees of freedom with the spacetime lattice. In other words, we spread the spinor degrees

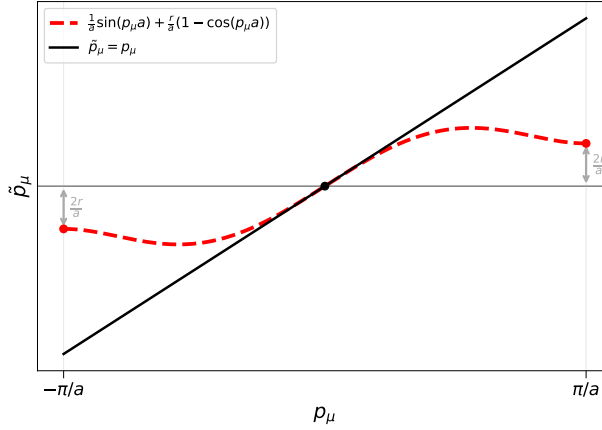


Figure 2: Illustration of the solution to the doubling problem with the Wilson term. It lifts the zeros of $\tilde{p}_\mu$ at the corners of the Brillouin zone.

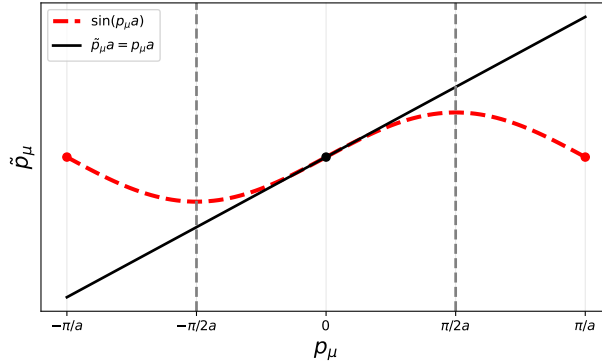


Figure 3: The effect of staggering the spinor degrees of freedom across the lattice to get an effective lattice spacing of $2a$, thus halving the Brillouin zone – shown by the dashed grey line.

of freedom among the lattice sites such that effectively the lattice spacing doubles and the Brillouin zone halves. This can be seen in the following figure (Fig. 3),

The key idea of staggered fermions is made concrete in Fig. 4: one assigns a different spinor component to each lattice site – this is done by a transformation which we will not discuss in this lecture, but can be found in [2]. As an example in how we remove doublers with the staggered formulation, we take a 2D lattice with a two-component spinor as shown in the figure. In the naive discretisation we would find 2^2 fermions, but now we find only 2. In the literature, these are called tastes. Further, if we use the four-component spinor – we can remove this doubling entirely. An interesting aspect of this formulation is that it doesn't completely destroy Chiral symmetry with – so we have a middle ground with respect to the naive and Wilson forms – we have *some* doubling and *some* Chiral symmetry.

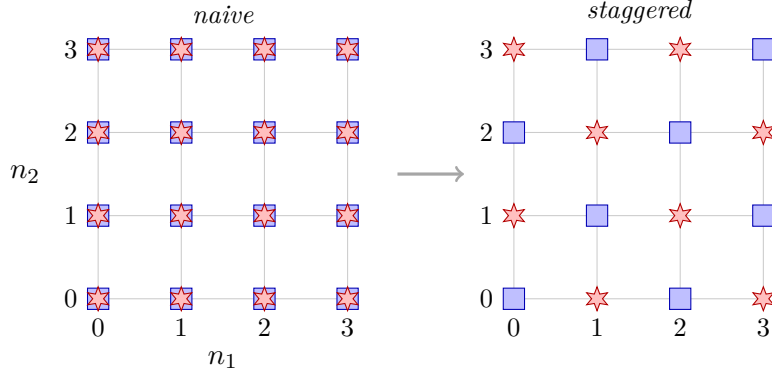


Figure 4: Assuming that we have a two-component spinor at each lattice site, given by a square and a star. On the left: naive lattice with lattice spacing a , and every site carries all spinor components. On the right: staggered lattice – spinor components are distributed across sites, effectively doubling the lattice spacing.

6 A No-Go Theorem: Simplified Nielsen-Ninomiya

The doubling problem we encountered is not an accident - it is a consequence of a deep mathematical theorem. The *Nielsen-Ninomiya theorem* (1981) states that it is *impossible* to write down a free lattice fermion action that simultaneously satisfies all four of the following properties:

Original proofs in refs.[3, 4]. For a textbook treatment see Chapter 4 of ref.[2] or Chapter 5 of ref.[5].

- (i) **Locality** - the action couples only to a finite number of neighbouring sites.
- (ii) **Translational invariance** - the action is invariant under lattice translations.
- (iii) **Chiral symmetry** - the action anticommutes with γ^5 , i.e. $\{D, \gamma^5\} = 0$, where D is the Dirac operator.
- (iv) **Correct continuum limit** - in the limit $a \rightarrow 0$ the action reduces to the single-flavour continuum Dirac action.

In other words, any doubling-free lattice Dirac operator must break at least one of these four properties. This is the essence of the no-go theorem - one has to make a choice about which property to sacrifice. In practice, the two most common choices are,

- **Wilson fermions** - break chiral symmetry (iii) by adding a dimension-5 irrelevant operator (the Wilson term) that gives the doublers a mass of order $1/a$ and decouples them in the continuum limit.
- **Staggered fermions** - break translational invariance (ii) by distributing the spinor components across different lattice sites, reducing the number of doublers from 2^d to $2^{d/2}$.

Note that this is not the end of the story - it is barely the beginning! The lattice community has come up with very elegant ways to go around the Nielsen-Ninomiya theorem. In these formulations, one has ways of defining lattice versions of the Chiral symmetry (Ginsparg and Wilson [6]). The other sophisticated formulations include Domain Wall fermions by D. Kaplan [7] and Overlap fermions by H. Neuberger [8].

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